

Chapter 16: Sampling Plans

Algorithms for Optimization, 2nd ed.
Kochenderfer & Wheeler (MIT Press, 2026)

Lecture Notes

Based on Kochenderfer & Wheeler — Algorithms for Optimization

June 12, 2026

Chapter 16 Overview

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Why Sampling Plans?

The Core Problem

Evaluating a complex objective $f(x)$ is expensive:

- Hardware design / wing aerodynamics simulation
- Hyperparameter tuning (deep neural networks)
- Surrogate model construction

Key Insight

Before running any optimizer, we need an initial set of design points that *covers* the search space as well as possible using a limited number of evaluations.

A **sampling plan** $X = \{x^{(1)}, \dots, x^{(m)}\}$ is a set of m points in the design space $x \in [a_1, b_1] \times \dots \times [a_n, b_n] \subset \mathbb{R}^n$.

Design Space

- n dimensions (variables)
- m sample points
- Lower bounds $a \in \mathbb{R}^n$
- Upper bounds $b \in \mathbb{R}^n$

Goal: maximize coverage of $[a, b]^n$ while keeping m small.

16.1 Full Factorial Designs

Definition

Place m_i evenly-spaced points in each dimension i :

$$x_{i,j} = a_i + (j-1) \frac{b_i - a_i}{m_i - 1}, \quad j = 1, \dots, m_i$$

Total samples: $\prod_{i=1}^n m_i$

Spacing between adjacent points

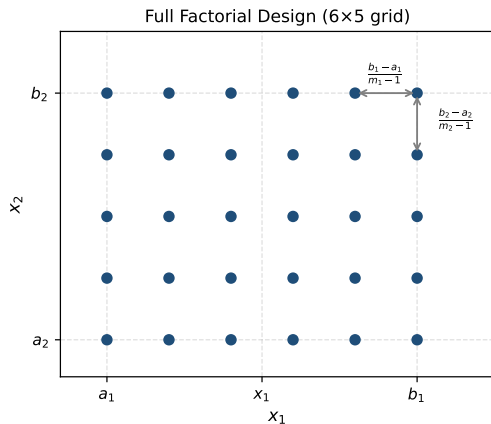
$$\Delta_i = \frac{b_i - a_i}{m_i - 1}$$

Curse of Dimensionality

If $m_i = m$ for all i : total = m^n .

For $m = 10, n = 10$: 10^{10} samples!

Exponential growth makes full factorial infeasible for



Grid of $6 \times 5 = 30$ points in 2D. Spacing labelled as $\frac{b_1 - a_1}{m_1 - 1}$ and $\frac{b_2 - a_2}{m_2 - 1}$.

Full Factorial — Python Implementation

Algorithm 16.1 (Python equivalent)

Return all grid locations for a full factorial plan. a , b : lower/upper bound vectors; m : sample counts per dimension.

```
1 import numpy as np
2 from itertools import product
3
4 def samples_full_factorial(a, b, m):
5     """
6     a : array of lower bounds (length n)
7     b : array of upper bounds (length n)
8     m : array of sample counts per dimension (length n)
9     Returns list of all grid points as numpy arrays.
10    """
11    grids = [np.linspace(a[i], b[i], m[i]) for i in range(len(a))]
12    return [np.array(pt) for pt in product(*grids)]
13
14 # Example: 2D, 3x3 grid on [0,1]^2
15 pts = samples_full_factorial([0, 0], [1, 1], [3, 3])
16 print(f"Total points: {len(pts)}") # 9
17 print("Points:", np.round(pts, 3))
```

Listing 1: Full factorial sampling (NumPy)

16.2 Random Sampling

Method

Draw m points independently from the design space. For bounded variable $x_i \in [a_i, b_i]$:

$$x_i \sim \text{Uniform}(a_i, b_i)$$

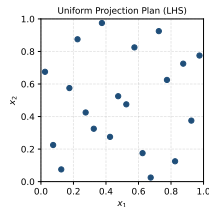
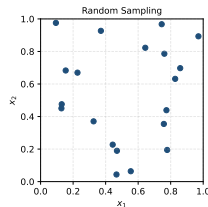
Components are *independent* across dimensions.

Advantages

- Trivially simple to implement
- No exponential blowup with n
- Unbiased — no systematic structure

Disadvantages

- **Clustering**: points tend to clump by chance
- **Gaps**: large regions can be left uncovered



Left: random sampling (note clustering).
Right: LHS — uniform projection (better coverage).

Random Sampling — Python

```
1 import numpy as np
2
3 def random_sampling(a, b, m, seed=None):
4     """
5     Draw m random samples from the hypercube [a, b].
6     a, b : lower/upper bound arrays (length n)
7     m    : number of samples
8     Returns (m x n) array.
9     """
10    rng = np.random.default_rng(seed)
11    a, b = np.asarray(a, float), np.asarray(b, float)
12    return a + rng.uniform(size=(m, len(a))) * (b - a)
13
14 # Example: 20 points in  $[0,1]^2$ 
15 X = random_sampling([0, 0], [1, 1], 20, seed=42)
16 print(X.shape)    # (20, 2)
17
18 # Log-uniform sampling for step-size hyperparameters
19 def log_uniform_sampling(a, b, m, seed=None):
20    rng = np.random.default_rng(seed)
21    log_a, log_b = np.log(a), np.log(b)
22    return np.exp(log_a + rng.uniform(size=(m, len(a)))) * (log_b - log_a))
```

Listing 2: Random sampling with NumPy

16.3 Uniform Projection Plans

Definition

A sampling plan X over an $m \times m$ grid is a **uniform projection plan** if, when projected onto any single dimension, the m samples are evenly distributed (one point per row, one per column — like a Latin square).

Latin Hypercube Sampling (LHS)

Generalization to n dimensions:

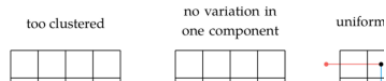
- 1 Divide each dimension into m equal strata of width $\frac{1}{m}$
- 2 Assign exactly one sample to each stratum in each dimension
- 3 Randomize within each stratum:

$$x_i^{(k)} \sim \text{Uniform}\left(\frac{\sigma_k^{(i)} - 1}{m}, \frac{\sigma_k^{(i)}}{m}\right)$$

where $\sigma^{(i)}$ is a random permutation of $\{1, \dots, m\}$

16.3 Uniform Projection Plans

Suppose we have a two-dimensional optimization problem disci $m \times m$ sampling grid as with the full factorial method, but, instea m^2 samples, we want to sample only m positions. We could choo at random, but not all arrangements are equally useful. We want be spread across the space, and we want the samples to be spre individual component.



Left: unconstrained random (3 in one column, none in another).

Right: uniform projection (one per column).

Uniform Projection Plans — Python

```
1 import numpy as np
2
3 def latin_hypercube_sample(m, n, seed=None):
4     """
5     Generate m-point Latin Hypercube Sampling in n dimensions, unit hypercube.
6     m : number of samples
7     n : number of dimensions
8     Returns (m x n) array with values in [0, 1].
9     """
10    rng = np.random.default_rng(seed)
11    X = np.zeros((m, n))
12    for i in range(n):
13        perm = rng.permutation(m)           # random permutation of strata
14        offsets = rng.uniform(size=m)       # uniform within each stratum
15        X[:, i] = (perm + offsets) / m
16    return X
17
18 # Scale to [a, b]
19 def lhc_sample(a, b, m, seed=None):
20     a, b = np.asarray(a, float), np.asarray(b, float)
21     X01 = latin_hypercube_sample(m, len(a), seed)
22     return a + X01 * (b - a)
23
24 # Example
25 X = lhc_sample([0, 0], [1, 1], 10, seed=7)
26 print("LHS plan (10 pts, 2D):\n", np.round(X, 3))
27
```

Uniform Projection Plans — Properties

Key Property

For any one-dimensional projection onto dimension i , the m points each fall in a distinct stratum $[\frac{k-1}{m}, \frac{k}{m}]$ for $k = 1, \dots, m$.

Numerical Example ($m = 5, n = 2$)

Strata in x_1 :

$[0, 0.2), [0.2, 0.4), [0.4, 0.6), [0.6, 0.8), [0.8, 1]$

Each stratum gets *exactly one* point.

Same guarantee for x_2 .

Limitation

Uniform projection is guaranteed only for 1D marginals. Pairs of dimensions may still cluster (in higher n).

Algorithm 16.2 (Python)

`sample_uniform_projection(m)` generates an m -point uniform projection plan over $\{1, \dots, m\}^n$:

- 1 For each dimension i : draw random permutation $\sigma^{(i)}$ of $1 \dots m$
- 2 Return $\{(\sigma_k^{(1)}, \sigma_k^{(2)}, \dots, \sigma_k^{(n)})\}_{k=1}^m$

Total possible plans in 2D: $m!$ (only m of m^m grids are valid UPPs).

For $m = 10$: $10! = 3,628,800$ possible plans.

16.4 Stratified Sampling

Concept

Divide the design space into non-overlapping **strata** (sub-regions). Draw at least one sample from each stratum.

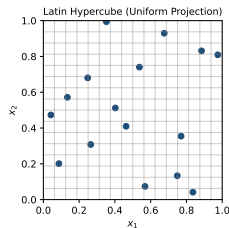
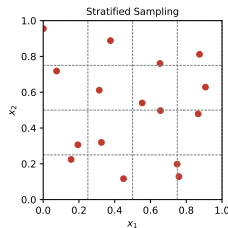
$$X = X_1 \cup X_2 \cup \dots \cup X_k, \quad X_i \cap X_j = \emptyset$$

This prevents large empty regions from occurring.

Relation to Projection Plans

Stratified sampling $\supseteq$ LHS:

- **Pure stratified**: one point per 2D cell (factorial structure, m^2 total)
- **LHS / UPP**: one point per row *and* per column, m total
- LHS is a more efficient form of stratified sampling



Left: grid-stratified (one point per 2D cell).

Right: Latin Hypercube (one per row & column stratum).

Stratified Sampling — Python

```
1 import numpy as np
2
3 def stratified_sample(a, b, m_per_dim, seed=None):
4     """
5     Grid-stratified sampling: one random point per cell.
6     a, b          : bound vectors (length n)
7     m_per_dim     : number of strata per dimension (list of ints)
8     Returns array of shape (prod(m_per_dim), n).
9     """
10    from itertools import product
11    rng = np.random.default_rng(seed)
12    a, b = np.asarray(a, float), np.asarray(b, float)
13    n = len(a)
14    # stratum edges for each dimension
15    edges = [np.linspace(a[i], b[i], m_per_dim[i] + 1) for i in range(n)]
16    pts = []
17    for idx in product(*[range(m) for m in m_per_dim]):
18        pt = [rng.uniform(edges[i][idx[i]], edges[i][idx[i]+1])
19              for i in range(n)]
20        pts.append(pt)
21    return np.array(pts)
22
23 # Example: 3x3 strata in 2D
24 X = stratified_sample([0,0], [1,1], [3,3], seed=0)
25 print(f"Points: {len(X)}") # 9
```

Listing 4: Stratified sampling in Python

16.5 Space-Filling Metrics — Overview

To *compare* sampling plans, we need a quantitative metric. Two key families:

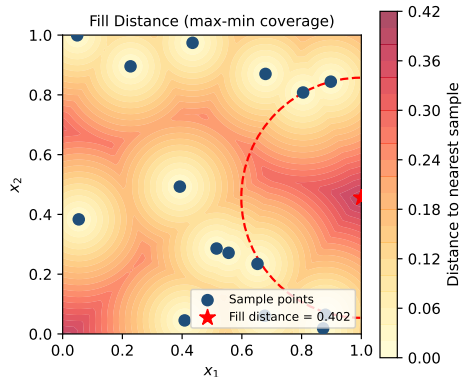
- 1 **Discrepancy** — how much does the empirical distribution deviate from uniform?
- 2 **Fill Distance** — what is the largest uncovered region?

Both measure different aspects of “how well does X cover $\mathcal{X}$?”

Setup

Design space: $\mathcal{X} = [0, 1]^n$ (unit hypercube)

Sampling plan: $X = \{x^{(1)}, \dots, x^{(m)}\}$



Heatmap of distance-to-nearest-sample. Fill distance = radius of largest empty circle (red star).

16.5.1 Discrepancy

Definition (Star Discrepancy)

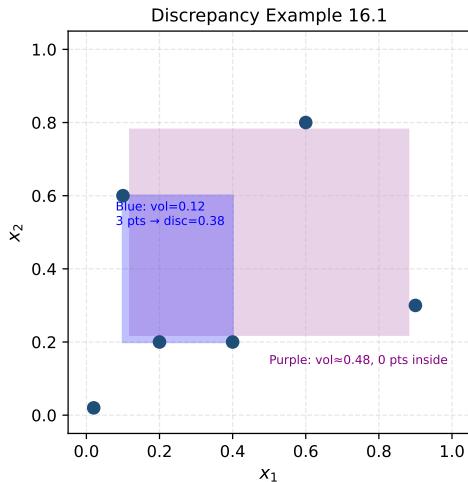
For a set X of m points and a rectangular subset $H \subseteq [0, 1]^n$:

$$D(X) = \sup_{H \subseteq [0,1]^n} \left| \frac{\#(X \cap H)}{m} - \text{Vol}(H) \right|$$

where the supremum is over all axis-aligned rectangles H .

Interpretation

- $\frac{\#(X \cap H)}{m}$: fraction of points in H
- $\text{Vol}(H)$: fraction of volume in H
- $D(X)$ = maximum mismatch between empirical and uniform
- **Low discrepancy** $\Rightarrow$ better coverage



Example 16.1: Blue rectangle: $x_1 \in [\frac{1}{10}, \frac{2}{5}]$,
 $x_2 \in [\frac{1}{5}, \frac{3}{5}]$, Vol = 0.12, contains 3 pts.
Discrepancy: $|\frac{3}{6} - 0.12| = 0.38$

16.5.1 Discrepancy — Worked Example I

16.5.1 Discrepancy — Worked Example II

Example 16.1 from the book

Consider the 6-point set:

$$X = \left\{ \begin{bmatrix} 1/5 \\ 1/5 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 2/5 \\ 1/5 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 1/10 \\ 3/5 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 9/10 \\ 3/10 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 1/50 \\ 1/50 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 3/5 \\ 4/5 \end{bmatrix} \right\}$$

Blue rectangle: $x_1 \in [1/10, 2/5]$, $x_2 \in [1/5, 3/5]$

- Volume = $(2/5 - 1/10) \times (3/5 - 1/5) = 0.3 \times 0.4 = 0.12$
- Contains points: $(1/5, 1/5)$, $(2/5, 1/5)$, $(1/10, 3/5)$ — **3 points**
- Discrepancy measure: $|3/6 - 0.12| = |0.5 - 0.12| = 0.38$

Purple rectangle: $x_1 \in [1/10 + \epsilon, 9/10 - \epsilon]$, $x_2 \in [1/5 + \epsilon, 4/5 - \epsilon]$

- As $\epsilon \rightarrow 0$: Volume $\rightarrow (0.8) \times (0.6) = 0.48$
- Contains **0 points** (just misses all of them)
- Discrepancy: $|0/6 - 0.48| = 0.48$ (even worse!)

The **supremum** (over all rectangles) gives $D(X) = 0.48$. Note: we need the *supremum* because the maximum is approached in the limit $\epsilon \rightarrow 0$.

16.5.2 Fill Distance (Packing Distance)

Fill Distance

The **fill distance** (covering radius) measures the worst-case distance from any point in $\mathcal{X}$ to its nearest sample:

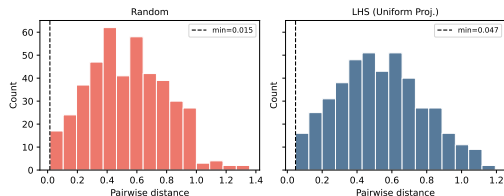
$$d_{\text{fill}}(X, \mathcal{X}) = \sup_{z \in \mathcal{X}} \min_{x \in X} \|z - x\|_p$$

Pairwise Distances (Algorithm 16.3)

To assess coverage, compute all pairwise L_p distances:

$$D_{\text{pairs}}(X, p) = \{ \|x^{(i)} - x^{(j)}\|_p \mid i < j \}$$

Minimum pairwise distance = *packing distance*.
Want: large min distance AND small fill distance.



Pairwise distance histograms for 30-point plans.
LHS (right) has larger minimum pairwise distances.

Pairwise Distances — Python

```
1 import numpy as np
2 from scipy.spatial.distance import pdist
3
4 def pairwise_distances(X, p=2):
5     """
6     X : (m x n) array of sample points
7     p : L_p norm (default: Euclidean p=2)
8     Returns array of all m*(m-1)/2 pairwise distances.
9     """
10    # Direct loop (as in book)
11    m = len(X)
12    dists = [np.linalg.norm(X[i] - X[j], ord=p)
13             for i in range(m-1) for j in range(i+1, m)]
14    return np.array(dists)
15
16 # Using scipy (faster):
17 def pairwise_distances_scipy(X, p=2):
18     return pdist(X, metric='minkowski', p=p)
19
20 # Compare two plans
21 X_rand = np.random.default_rng(0).uniform(0, 1, (20, 2))
22 X_lhc = latin_hypercube_sample(20, 2, seed=0) # from earlier
23
24 dr = pairwise_distances(X_rand)
25 dl = pairwise_distances(X_lhc)
26 print(f"Random: min dist = {dr.min():.4f}")
27 print(f"LHS: min dist = {dl.min():.4f}") # typically larger
```

16.5.3 Morris-Mitchell Criterion

Morris-Mitchell Φ_q Criterion (Eq. 16.2)

For a sampling plan X with pairwise distances $\{d_i\}$:

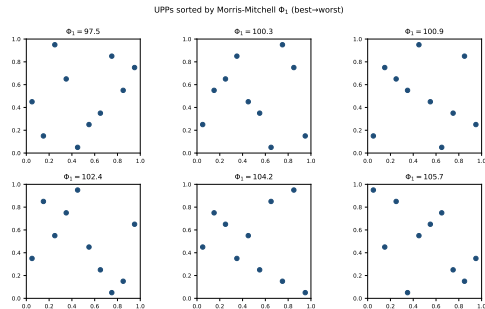
$$\Phi_q(X) = \left(\sum_i d_i^{-q} \right)^{1/q}$$

where $q > 0$ is a tunable parameter.

- q large: emphasizes the *smallest* distance
- $q = 1$: harmonic mean-like; spread over all distances
- We want to **minimize** Φ_q

Optimization Problem (Eq. 16.3)

$$\underset{X}{\text{minimize}} \underset{\sigma}{\text{maximize}} \Phi_q(X)$$



Six random LHS plans sorted by Φ_1 . Lower Φ_1 = better space-filling.

Morris-Mitchell — Python + Mutation Algorithm

```
1 import numpy as np
2
3 def phi_q(X, q=1):
4     """Morris-Mitchell criterion. Minimize this."""
5     dists = pdist(X)           # all pairwise L2 distances
6     return np.sum(dists**(-q))**(1/q)
7
8 def compare_sampling_plans(A, B, p=2, q=1):
9     """Return 1 if A is more space-filling than B, -1 if B, 0 if equal."""
10    da = np.sort(pdist(A, metric='minkowski', p=p))
11    db = np.sort(pdist(B, metric='minkowski', p=p))
12    for a, b in zip(da, db):
13        if a < b: return -1    # A has smaller min distance => B better
14        if a > b: return 1
15    return 0
16
17 def mutate(X):
18     """Swap two values in a random column (Algorithm 16.5 in book).
19     Maintains uniform projection property."""
20    X2 = X.copy()
21    m, n = X2.shape
22    col = np.random.randint(n)
23    i, j = np.random.choice(m, 2, replace=False)
24    X2[i, col], X2[j, col] = X2[j, col], X2[i, col]
25    return X2
26
27 # Stochastic optimization of LHS
```

16.6 Space-Filling Subsets

Problem

Given a large set X of design points, find a *subset* $S \subset X$, $|S| = m$, that still “maximally fills” X .

$$d(A, B) = \max_{x \in A} \min_{y \in B} \|x - y\|_p$$

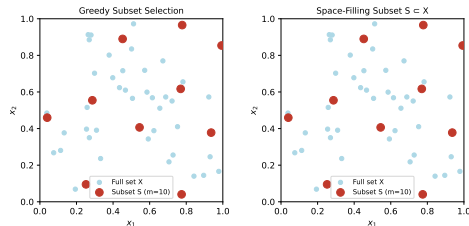
Minimize the fill distance: $\min_S d(X, S)$.

Application

Multifidelity models: use X (cheap simulation) to identify m design points to evaluate with expensive high-fidelity model. E.g., wind-tunnel testing of aircraft wing designs.

Optimization

Exact minimization is NP-hard. Two practical approaches: (1) Greedy selection (Alg. 16.8), (2)



Blue dots: full candidate set X . Red dots: space-filling subset $S \subset X$ (greedy selection, $m = 10$).

16.6 Greedy Subset Selection (Algorithm 16.8)

```
1 import numpy as np
2 from scipy.spatial.distance import cdist
3
4 def greedy_subset_selection(X, m, p=2):
5     """
6     Algorithm 16.8: Greedy subset selection.
7     Builds an m-point subset that minimizes fill distance  $d(X, S)$ .
8     X : (N x n) array --- full candidate set
9     m : desired subset size
10    p : L_p norm
11    Returns list of indices into X.
12    """
13    N = len(X)
14    rng = np.random.default_rng(0)
15    S = [rng.integers(N)]          # start with one random point
16
17    for _ in range(m - 1):
18        # For each candidate NOT in S:
19        # find its distance to the current subset S
20        S_arr = X[S]
21        # cdist: shape (N, |S|)
22        dists = cdist(X, S_arr, metric='minkowski', p=p)
23        # distance from each x to nearest point in S
24        d_to_S = dists.min(axis=1)
25        # mask out already-selected points
26        d_to_S[S] = -np.inf
27        # pick the point FARTHEST from S (minimizes fill distance)
```

16.6 Exchange Subset Selection (Algorithm 16.9)

```
1 def exchange_subset_selection(X, m, p=2):
2     """
3     Algorithm 16.9: Exchange-based subset selection.
4     Iteratively swaps elements of S with points in  $X \setminus S$ 
5     to reduce fill distance.
6     """
7     from scipy.spatial.distance import cdist
8     rng = np.random.default_rng(0)
9     S_idx = list(rng.choice(len(X), m, replace=False))
10
11     def fill_dist(S_idx):
12         S = X[S_idx]
13         dists = cdist(X, S).min(axis=1)
14         return dists.max()
15
16     delta = fill_dist(S_idx)
17     done = False
18     while not done:
19         best_pair = None
20         for i in range(m):
21             old = S_idx[i]
22             for j, x in enumerate(X):
23                 if j in S_idx:
24                     continue
25                 S_idx[i] = j
26                 delta_prime = fill_dist(S_idx)
27                 if delta_prime < delta:
```

16.7 Quasi-Random Sequences

Definition

Quasi-random sequences (low-discrepancy sequences) are *deterministic* sequences that fill the unit hypercube more uniformly than pseudo-random sequences.

Key property: when $x^{(k)}$ is sampled, the error in Monte Carlo integration satisfies:

$$\left| \frac{1}{m} \sum_{k=1}^m f(x^{(k)}) - \int f \right| = \mathcal{O}\left(\frac{(\log m)^n}{m}\right)$$

versus $\mathcal{O}(m^{-1/2})$ for random sampling.

Note

These sequences are *not* random. They are called

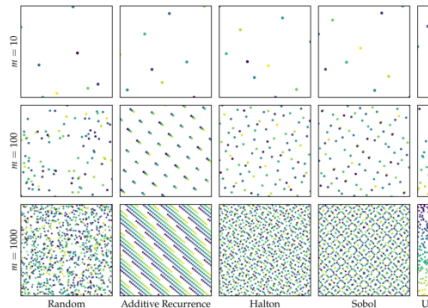


Figure 16
Sampling plans
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16.7.1 Additive Recurrence

Method (Eq. 16.7)

Generate a sequence in $[0, 1]$ using:

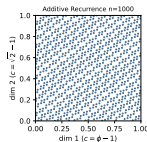
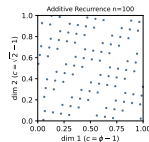
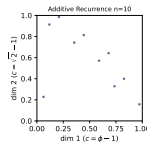
$$x^{(k+1)} = (x^{(k)} + c) \bmod 1$$

where c is **irrational**. Explicit form:

$$x^{(k)} = (x^{(0)} + kc) \bmod 1.$$

Choice of c

- Best 1D: $c = \phi - 1 = \frac{\sqrt{5}-1}{2} \approx 0.618$ (golden ratio conjugate)
- For n dimensions: use $c_i = \sqrt{p_i}$ where p_i is the i -th prime
- **Must be irrational:** rational $c = a/b$ gives period b (sequence repeats!)



Additive recurrence at $n = 10, 100, 1000$ samples. Diagonal stripes are visible — correlation between dimensions.

Additive Recurrence — Python (Algorithm 16.10)

```
1 import numpy as np
2
3 def filling_set_additive_recurrence(m, c=None):
4     """
5     1D additive recurrence sequence.
6     m : number of points
7     c : step size (default: golden ratio conjugate  $\phi-1$ )
8     """
9     if c is None:
10         phi = (1 + np.sqrt(5)) / 2
11         c = phi - 1    # ~0.6180339887...
12     x0 = np.random.rand()
13     return np.array([(x0 + k * c) % 1.0 for k in range(1, m + 1)])
14
15 def filling_set_additive_recurrence_nd(m, n):
16     """
17     n-dimensional additive recurrence.
18     Uses  $c_i = \sqrt{\text{prime}_i}$  for dimension  $i$ .
19     """
20     def nth_prime(k):
21         """Return the k-th prime (1-indexed)."""
22         primes, x = [], 2
23         while len(primes) < k:
24             if all(x % p != 0 for p in primes):
25                 primes.append(x)
26             x += 1
27         return primes[k-1]
```

16.7.2 Halton Sequence

Van der Corput Construction

For base b , the i -th Halton value is obtained by *reflecting* the base- b representation of i around the decimal point:

$$i = \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} a_k(i) b^k \Rightarrow \text{halton}(i, b) = \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} a_k(i) b^{-(k+1)}$$

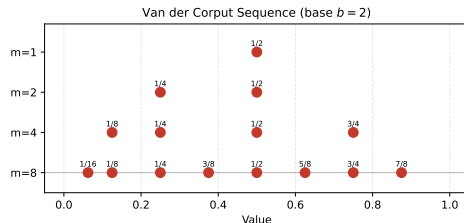
Examples (Eqs. 16.10–16.11)

Base $b = 2$:

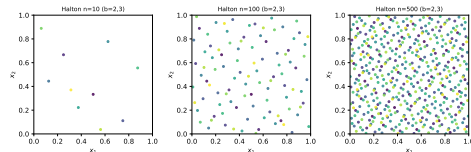
$$X = \left\{ \frac{1}{2}, \frac{1}{4}, \frac{3}{4}, \frac{1}{8}, \frac{3}{8}, \frac{5}{8}, \frac{7}{8}, \frac{1}{16}, \dots \right\}$$

Base $b = 5$:

$$X = \left\{ \frac{1}{5}, \frac{2}{5}, \frac{3}{5}, \frac{4}{5}, \frac{1}{25}, \frac{6}{25}, \frac{11}{25}, \dots \right\}$$



Van der Corput sequence (base 2)
progressively fills $[0, 1]$. Each new point fills
the largest gap.



2D Halton (bases 2 and 3) at
 $n = 10, 100, 500$.

Halton Sequence — Python (Algorithm 16.11)

```
1 import numpy as np
2
3 def halton(i, b):
4     """
5     i-th element of the van der Corput sequence in base b.
6     i : 1-indexed integer
7     b : base (must be prime for coprimality)
8     """
9     result, f = 0.0, 1.0
10    while i > 0:
11        f /= b
12        result += f * (i % b)
13        i = i // b
14    return result
15
16 def filling_set_halton(m, b=2):
17     """1D Halton sequence of length m in base b."""
18     return np.array([halton(i, b) for i in range(1, m + 1)])
19
20 def filling_set_halton_nd(m, n):
21     """n-dimensional Halton sequence using first n prime bases."""
22     from sympy import prime # or use a precomputed list
23     primes = [2, 3, 5, 7, 11, 13, 17, 19, 23, 29] # first 10 primes
24     assert n <= len(primes), f"Need at most {len(primes)} dimensions"
25     seqs = [filling_set_halton(m, b=primes[i]) for i in range(n)]
26     return np.column_stack(seqs)
27
```

16.7.3 Sobol Sequence

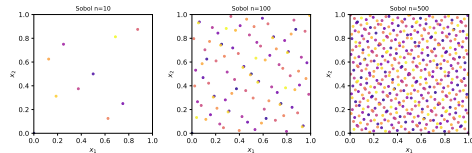
Sobol Sequences

Sobol sequences are n -dimensional quasi-random sequences based on **base-2** digit scrambling using direction numbers.

- Each dimension uses a different set of *direction numbers* $v_1, v_2, \dots$ (derived from primitive polynomials over $\mathbb{F}_2$)
- The k -th sample is: $x_i^{(k)} = k_1 v_1 \oplus k_2 v_2 \oplus \dots$ (bitwise XOR)
- Sobol sequences are better than Halton for higher dimensions (Halton shows correlation for large prime bases)

Python: `scipy.stats.qmc`

SciPy provides a production-quality Sobol generator.



Sobol sequence in 2D at $n = 10, 100, 500$. Points fill space very uniformly (diagonal structure visible at small n).

Important

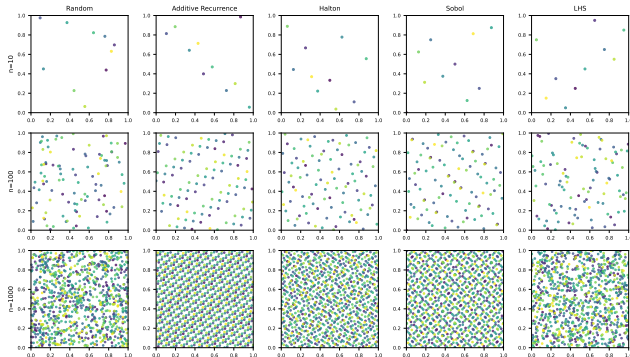
Best results when m is a power of 2 (Sobol has exact equidistribution at 2^k points).

Sobol Sequence — Python

```
1 import numpy as np
2 from scipy.stats import qmc
3
4 # --- Sobol sequence -----
5 def sobol_sample(m, n, scramble=True, seed=42):
6     """
7     Generate m Sobol points in n dimensions.
8     scramble: use randomized (Owen) scrambling for better uniformity
9     For best equidistribution, choose m = 2^k.
10    """
11    sampler = qmc.Sobol(d=n, scramble=scramble, seed=seed)
12    X = sampler.random_base2(m=int(np.log2(m))) # m must be power of 2
13    return X
14
15 # Scale to [a, b]
16 def sobol_sample_scaled(a, b, m, scramble=True, seed=42):
17     a, b = np.asarray(a, float), np.asarray(b, float)
18     X01 = sobol_sample(m, len(a), scramble, seed)
19     return qmc.scale(X01, a, b)
20
21 # --- Halton sequence (scipy) -----
22 def halton_sample(a, b, m, seed=42):
23     a, b = np.asarray(a, float), np.asarray(b, float)
24     sampler = qmc.Halton(d=len(a), seed=seed)
25     X01 = sampler.random(n=m)
26     return qmc.scale(X01, a, b)
27
```

Comparison of All Methods

Space-Filling Sampling Methods Comparison



Rows: $n = 10, 100, 1000$ points. Columns: Random, Additive Recurrence, Halton, Sobol, LHS (Uniform Projection). Colors encode order of sampling.

Observations

- **Random**: clusters and gaps
- **Additive Recurrence**: diagonal banding
- **Halton**: excellent 2D coverage, may show patterns in high- n
- **Sobol**: very uniform, best for moderate n
- **LHS**: one-per-stratum guarantee, but no inter-dimensional structure

Rule of Thumb

For $n \leq 10$ dims: Sobol / Halton.

For any n : optimized LHS (Morris-Mitchell).

For subsets: greedy or exchange selection

Chapter 16 Key Concepts

- ➊ **Full Factorial**: evaluates all combinations on a grid. $\mathcal{O}(m^n)$ samples — only practical for small n .
- ➋ **Random Sampling**: draws m independent uniform samples. Simple but prone to clustering.
- ➌ **Uniform Projection Plans (LHS)**: one point per stratum in each dimension. Better 1D marginals; $\mathcal{O}(m)$ samples.
- ➍ **Stratified Sampling**: generalization that ensures sub-region coverage; LHS is a special case.
- ➎ **Discrepancy**: measures deviation of empirical distribution from uniform over all axis-aligned rectangles H .
- ➏ **Fill Distance**: largest radius uncovered ball in $\mathcal{X}$.
- ➐ **Morris-Mitchell Criterion** Φ_q : minimizes $(\sum d_i^{-q})^{1/q}$; encourages large minimum pairwise distance.

Summary II

Key Algorithms

Algorithm	Method	Use Case
16.1	Full factorial grid	Small n (grid search)
16.2	Uniform projection plan	LHS generation
16.3	Pairwise distances	Plan evaluation
16.4	Compare plans	Ranking plans
16.5	Mutation	LHS optimization
16.6	Morris-Mitchell Φ_q	Quality metric
16.7	Max-fill distance	Subset metric
16.8	Greedy subset	Space-filling subset
16.9	Exchange subset	Improved subset
16.10	Additive recurrence	Quasi-random
16.11	Halton	Quasi-random

Monte Carlo Integration Rate

Method	Error rate
Random (MC)	$\mathcal{O}(m^{-1/2})$
Quasi-random (QMC)	$\mathcal{O}((\log m)^n/m)$

For large m and small n , QMC is much faster to converge.

Python Libraries

- `scipy.stats.qmc`: Sobol, Halton, LHS
- `numpy.random`: pseudo-random
- `pyDOE2`: Latin Hypercube (extended)
- `SALib`: sensitivity analysis designs

16.9 Selected Exercises I

Exercise 16.1 — Curse of Dimensionality

An n -dimensional hypercube of side ℓ filling half the volume of the unit hypercube satisfies $\ell^n = 1/2$, so:

$$\ell = 2^{-1/n} \xrightarrow{n \rightarrow \infty} 1$$

For $n = 2$: $\ell = 1/\sqrt{2} \approx 0.707$. For $n = 10$: $\ell = 2^{-0.1} \approx 0.933$. The side length approaches 1, meaning we need to search almost the entire space to cover half its volume!

Exercise 16.2 — Concentration of Measure

For a random point x uniform in the n -ball:

$$P(\|x\|_2 > 1 - \epsilon) = 1 - P(\|x\|_2 \leq 1 - \epsilon) = 1 - (1 - \epsilon)^n \rightarrow 1$$

As $n \rightarrow \infty$, *all* mass concentrates near the surface. Random sampling becomes increasingly inefficient in high dimensions.

16.9 Selected Exercises II

Exercise 16.3 — Morris-Mitchell & Translation Invariance

Sampling plan $X = \{[\cos(2\pi i/10), \sin(2\pi i/10)]\}_{i=1}^{10}$. Adding $[2, 3]$ to every point: $\Phi_2(X)$ **does not change**.

Reason: Φ_q depends only on *pairwise distances*, and translation shifts all points equally, leaving all pairwise distances $\|x^{(i)} - x^{(j)}\|$ unchanged.

Exercise 16.4 — Why c Must Be Irrational

If $c = a/b$ (rational), the additive recurrence:

$$x^{(k)} = x^{(0)} + k \frac{a}{b} \pmod{1}$$

After b steps: $x^{(k+b)} = x^{(0)} + (k+b) \frac{a}{b} \pmod{1} = x^{(k)} + a \pmod{1} = x^{(k)}$. The sequence is *periodic* with period b and only covers b distinct points, not a dense filling of $[0, 1]$.

Key Principles

- Function evaluations are expensive: choose sample points wisely
- Full factorial is impractical for $n > 4$
- Latin Hypercube (UPP) gives good 1D coverage with only m points
- Quasi-random sequences (Halton, Sobol) beat random for integration
- Optimize LHS with Morris-Mitchell criterion Φ_q
- For subset selection: greedy or exchange algorithms

Design Space Coverage

As dimension n grows:

- Volume concentrates in corners
- All points near the surface of high-dim balls
- More samples needed to cover the same fraction
- No sampling plan fully solves the curse of dimensionality

“Covering the space of designs is the first step toward finding the best design.”